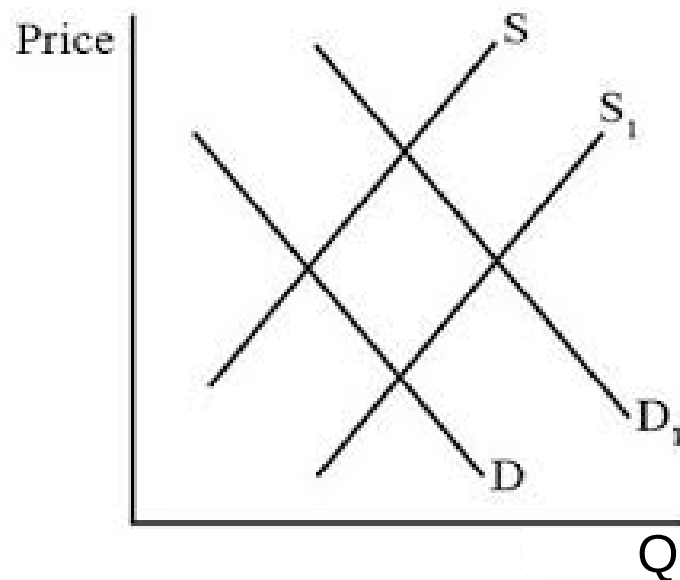


Class 30006 – Financial Markets and Institutions
Università Commerciale Luigi Bocconi
Fall 2025

Prof. Francesco Bripi

The Determinants of Interest Rates (Chapter 4)



Outline of Lecture

Topics of today

1. Asset demand
 - determinants
2. Bond market:
 - demand curve: derivation
 - supply curve: derivation
 - equilibrium
 - shifts in demand
 - shifts in supply

Determinants of (Financial) Asset Demand

1. **Wealth**: total resources owned by the individual (house, securities, car...).
2. **Expected return** (over the next period) on one asset *relative* to alternative assets
3. **Risk** (uncertainty on asset return) on one asset *relative* to alternative assets
4. **Liquidity** (the ease and speed with which an asset can be turned into cash) *relative* to alternative assets

Wealth

- ✓ Wealth has a positive effect on the demand of financial assets
 - Note: *wealth* ≠ *income*, it's a *stock variable*, not a *flow*
- ✓ Sounds pretty obvious, since financial assets are *normal goods* (i.e. not *inferior goods*)

Holding everything else constant

an **increase** in **wealth**

increases the **demand** of an asset

Expected Return

- ✓ The **expected return** is the average return across all *states of nature*

$$E(R) = \sum_{i=1}^N p_i \times R_i$$

where:

R_i is the return in state i

p_i is the probability of state i occurring (technically, this is the formula for the expected value of a *discrete* random variable)

For example, consider a coin toss: you win \$1 if heads and \$0 if tails.

Q: What are p_i , R_i and $E(R)$ in this case?

Expected Return

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For example, consider a coin toss: you win \$1 if heads and \$0 if tails.

Q: What are p_i , R_i and $E(R)$ in this case?

$$p_H = p_T = 0.5 ; R_H = \$1, R_T = \$0$$

$$E(R) = 0.5 \times 1 + 0.5 \times 0 = \$\mathbf{0.5}$$

Expected Return

- ✓ Nice thing about expected returns is that they are **additive**
- ✓ The expected return of a *portfolio of 2 fin. assets* (A and B) is the sum of the expected returns of the two *fin. assets*:

$$E(R_{portfolio}) = E(R_A + R_B) = E(R_A) + E(R_B)$$

Expected Return

Holding everything else constant,
an **increase** in the **expected return**
increases the **demand** of an asset

- ✓ Again: quite intuitive!
- ✓ Note: ceteris paribus condition (= *everything else constant*)
here is key
 - you may very well prefer an asset with lower expected return, but other factors different (e.g.: lower **risk!**)
- ✓ Often, high expected returns assets also have high risk
(risk-return trade-off)

Risk

- ✓ We measure **risk** as the standard deviation of an asset return (across all states of the world)

$$\sigma(R) = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^N p_i \times (R_i - E(R))^2}$$

- ✓ Consider stock A and its forecasted returns for the upcoming year:

$$R_i = \begin{cases} 3\% & p = 1/4 \\ 7\% & p = 1/2 \\ 15\% & p = 1/4 \end{cases}$$

Q: what is the risk of stock A?

A: 1st: need to calculate the expected return:

$$E(R) = (0.25 \cdot 0.03) + (0.5 \cdot 0.07) + (0.25 \cdot 0.14) = \$0.08 \text{ (read 8\%)}$$

...

Risk: Answer

... 2nd: take square of deviations from the mean weighting by their probability:

$$\sum_{i=1}^N p_i \times (R_i - E(R))^2$$
$$= 0.25 \cdot (0.03 - 0.08)^2 + 0.5 \cdot (0.07)^2 + 0.25 \cdot (0.14 - -0.08)^2 = 0.19\%$$

3rd: take the square root: $\sigma = \sqrt{0.19\%} = 4.36\%$

Now consider stock B:

$$R_i = \{8\% \quad p = 1\}$$

Q: What is the risk of stock B?

Risk: Answer

... 2nd: take square of deviations from the mean weighting by their probability:

$$\sum_{i=1}^N p_i \times (R_i - E(R))^2$$
$$= 0.25 \cdot (0.03 - 0.08)^2 + 0.5 \cdot (0.07)^2 + 0.25 \cdot (0.14 - -0.08)^2 = 0.19\%$$

3rd: take the square root: $\sigma = \sqrt{0.19\%} = 4.36\%$

Now consider stock B:

$$R_i = \{8\% \quad p = 1$$

Q: What is the risk of stock B?

A: 0 because the probability is 1 (no uncertainty!)

Risk

So, both stocks A and B have the same expected return: 8%.

- ✓ Should I be indifferent between the two?
 - a *risk-averse* individual prefers the asset with the **lower** risk (standard deviation), for the same expected return
 - he/she chooses stock **B** (the sure thing) to stock A (the riskier asset), because risk is costly to him/her
- ✓ We assume that people are *risk-averse*, especially in their financial decisions
 - generally, investors on financial markets are risk averse

Holding everything else constant,
an **increase** in **risk**
decreases the **demand** of an asset

Liquidity

✓ *Definition:* Ease and speed with which an asset is turn into cash

- Need **many traders** (buyers and sellers) and **active trades**
- Intuitively: the *higher the number of traders* in the market, the **easier** it will be to **sell** the asset in any period

EX: a house is generally an illiquid asset compared to other securities (stocks and bonds)

Again intuitively:

Holding everything else constant,
an **increase** in **liquidity**
increases the **demand** of an asset

Summary

Variable	Change in Variable	Change in Quantity Demanded
Wealth	↑	↑
Expected return relative to other assets	↑	↑
Risk relative to other assets	↑	↓
Liquidity relative to other assets	↑	↑

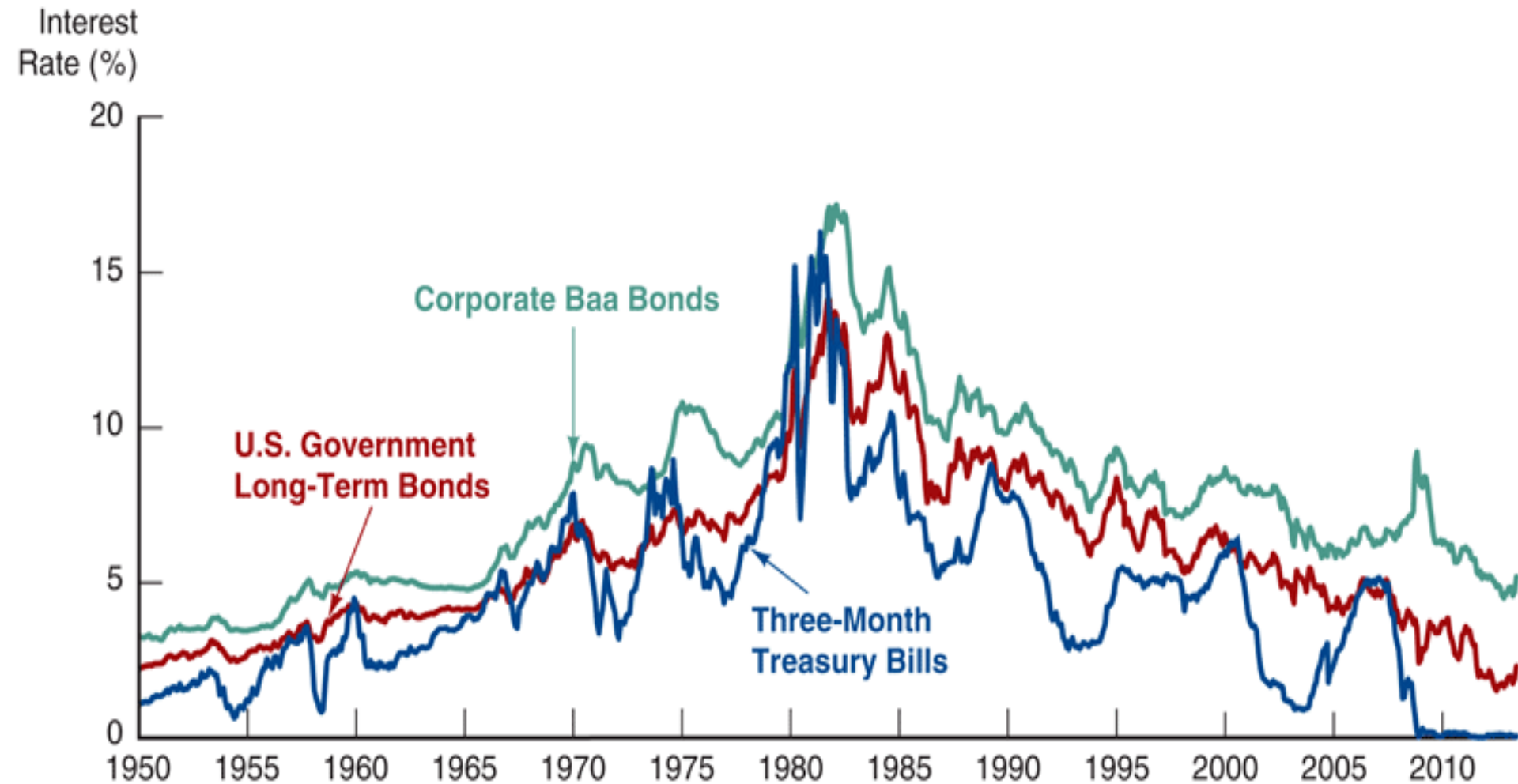
Note: Only increases in the variables are shown. The effect of decreases in the variables on the change in quantity demanded would be the opposite of those indicated in the far-right column.

Supply & Demand in the Bond Market

Definition of bond

- ✓ A bond is a debt security that promises the holder the payment of a specified amount (the face value) in the future upon maturity, as well as it may also promise the payment of periodic coupon interest
 - if the terms of repayment are not met by the bond issuer (e.g.: default), the bond holder has a claim on the assets of the bond issuer
- ✓ Determination of interest rates happens through **demand and supply** of bonds
- ✓ Various types of bonds ...
 - corporate bonds
 - government bonds
 - etc all have different interest rates
- ✓ However, because rates tend to move together, we will proceed as if there is one interest rate for the entire economy (like in macro)

Interest rates move together



Source: Federal Reserve Bank of St. Louis, FRED database: <http://research.stlouisfed.org/fred2/>.

Bonds: the **Demand** Curve

Let's start with the **demand** curve

- ✓ Let's consider a one-year ZCB with a face value of \$1,000.
- ✓ In this case, the return on this ZCB is entirely determined by its price
- ✓ The one-year return is, then, the ZCB's yield to maturity
(intuitively: YTM is yield if you hold the bond until maturity)

Derivation of Demand Curve

Formula for interest rate for one-year discount bond:

$$i^e = R^e = \frac{FV - P}{P}$$

- ✓ Point A: if the bond was selling for \$950 and face value = \$1,000:

$$P = \$950$$

$$i = \boxed{}$$

Assume $B^d = 100$ at point A (i.e. for $P = \$950$)

Derivation of Demand Curve

Formula for interest rate for one-year discount bond:

$$i^e = R^e = \frac{FV - P}{P}$$

- ✓ Point A: if the bond was selling for \$950 and face value = \$1,000:

$$P = \$950$$

$$i = \frac{(\$1000 - \$950)}{\$950} = .053 = 5.3\%$$

Assume $B^d = 100$ at point A (i.e. for $P = \$950$)

Derivation of Demand Curve (cont.)

Point B: if the bond was selling for \$900:

$$P = \$900$$

$$i = \frac{(\$1000 - \$900)}{\$900} = .111 = 11.1\%$$

$$B^d = 200$$

Q: Is the demand at point B likely to be higher or lower than at point A?

Derivation of Demand Curve (cont.)

Point B: if the bond was selling for \$900:

$$P = \$900$$

$$i = \frac{(\$1000 - \$900)}{\$900} = .111 = 11.1\%$$

$$B^d = 200$$

Q: Is the demand at point B likely to be higher or lower than at point A?

A: higher, because the **expected return** has gone up (lower P means higher R) and nothing else has changed. Suppose B^d at point B is \$200 (making up these numbers)

Derivation of Demand Curve

To continue ...

Point C: $P = \$850$ $i = 17.6\%$ $B^d = 300$

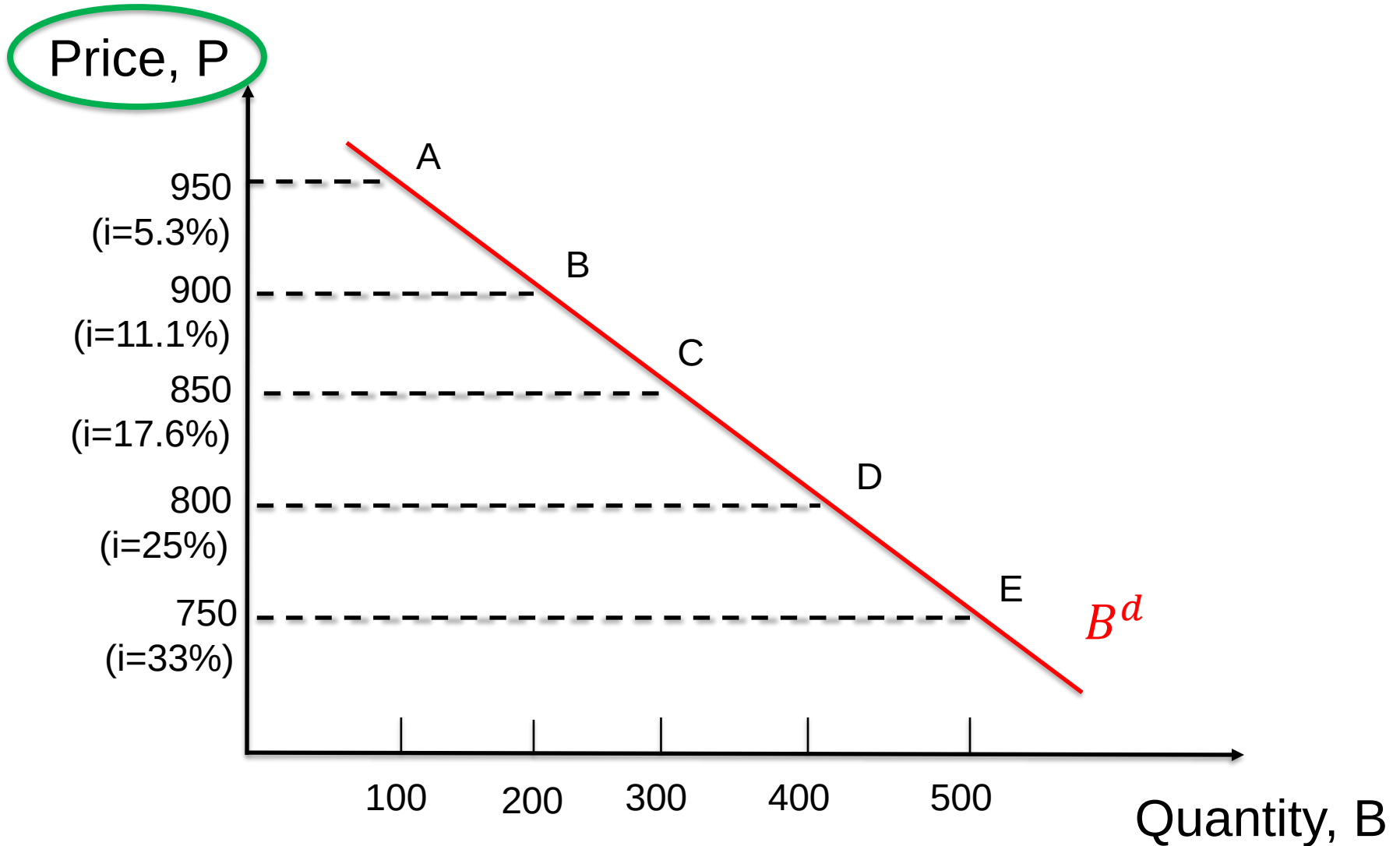
Point D: $P = \$800$ $i = 25.0\%$ $B^d = 400$

Point E: $P = \$750$ $i = 33.0\%$ $B^d = 500$

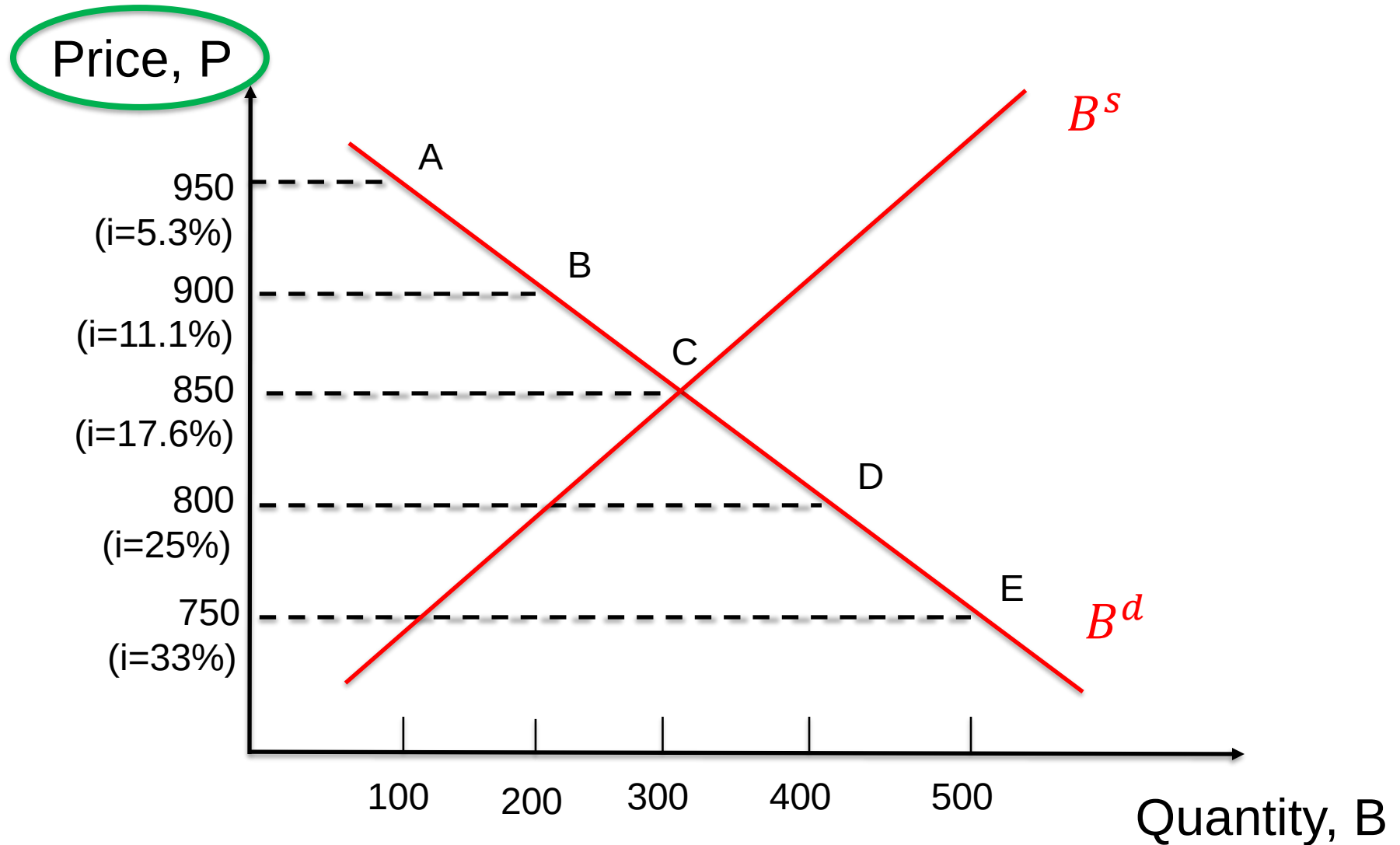
✓ As $P \downarrow \Rightarrow R^e \uparrow \Rightarrow B^d \uparrow \dots$

Demand curve has usual **downward** slope with respect to **price**

Demand Curve



Demand & Supply Curve



Derivation of Supply Curve

The derivation follows the same idea as the demand curve.

Q: why is the supply curve of bonds **upward** sloping?

Derivation of Supply Curve

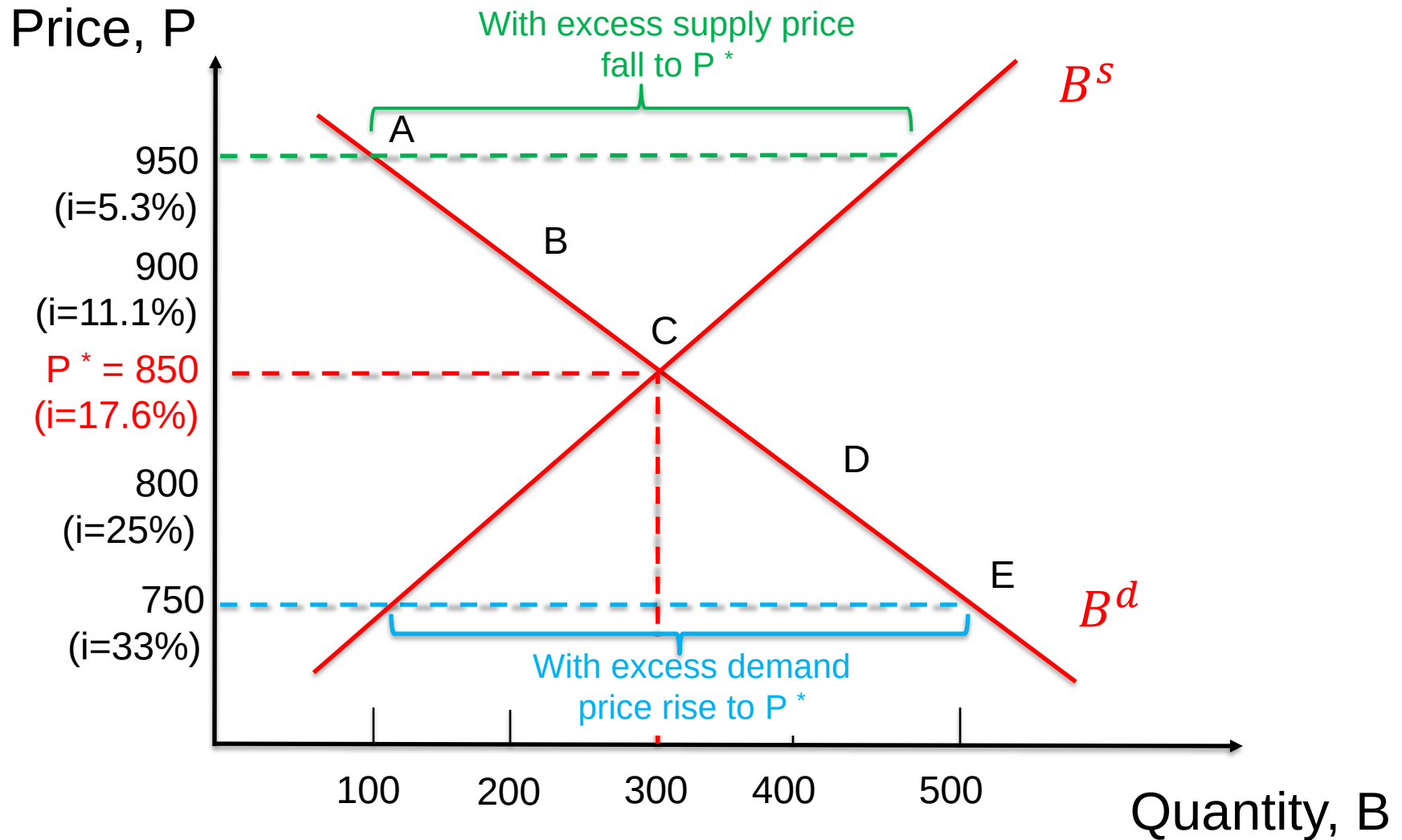
The derivation follows the same idea as the demand curve.

Q: why is the supply curve of bonds **upward** sloping?

A: If the borrowing **cost** for the issuer (=interest rate, i) is lower $\Rightarrow$ the price is higher

- then it is more convenient for the supplier to issue more bonds
- recall supplier of bonds is a borrower (buyer is the lender)!
- more bonds will be offered (supply) if the expected return (borrowing **cost** for the **issuer**) is *lower*

Demand & Supply Curve: Equilibrium



Market Equilibrium

- ✓ **Market equilibrium** occurs when the amount that people are willing to buy (*demand*) equals the amount that people are willing to sell (*supply*) at a given price
- ✓ **Excess supply** (price is “too high”) and **excess demand** (price is “too low”) are only temporary conditions in a *competitive market ...*
- ✓ Market forces will tend to
 - equate quantities demanded and supplied
 - at the equilibrium price/interest rate (*market clearing*⁽¹⁾)

(1): clearing the market from excess supply or demand

Market Equilibrium

The equilibrium occurs when supply-demand are equalized:

- ✓ $B^d = B^s$, at $P^* = 850, i^* = 17.6\%$
- ✓ when $P = \$950, i = 5.3\%, B^s > B^d$
(excess **supply**): $P \downarrow$ to P^* (or $i \uparrow$ to i^*)
- ✓ when $P = \$750, i = 33.0, B^d > B^s$
(excess **demand**): $P \uparrow$ to P^* (or $i \downarrow$ to i^*)

Changes in Equilibrium Interest Rates

- ✓ We now turn our attention to **shifts** in demand and in supply
- ✓ Then, we are going to put them together to derive equilibrium interest rates

Remember:

- movements along the curves will be due to price changes alone
- If **nothing else, that is not on the axes** (Q, P), changes, it's a **shift** of either or both curves

Shift in Demand

Factors that shift demand:

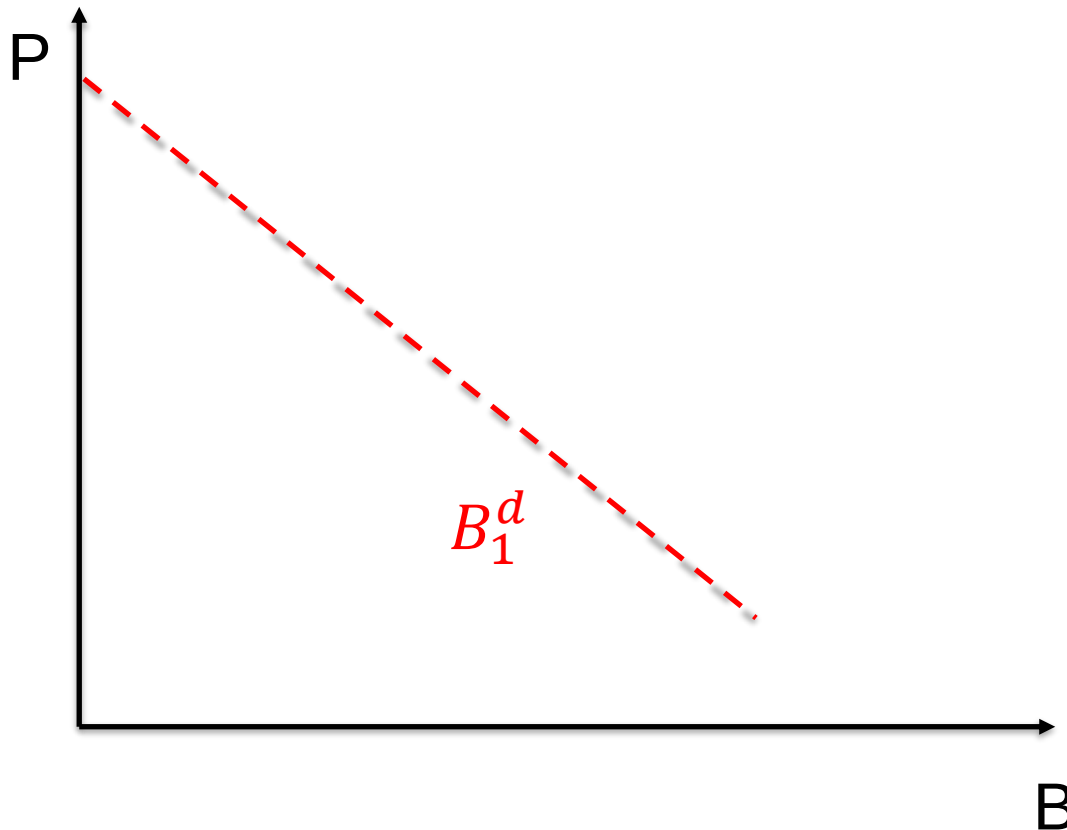
1. Wealth
2. Expected future interest rate: $E(i_{t+1})$
3. Riskiness: σ
4. Expected future inflation: π^e
5. Liquidity

Note: Only increases in the variables are shown. The effect of decreases in the variables on the change in demand would be the opposite of those indicated in the remaining columns.

Shift in Demand (1)

If **wealth**⁽¹⁾ $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ demand ?

Think of economic boom (crisis) that in/de-creases wealth (absolute)

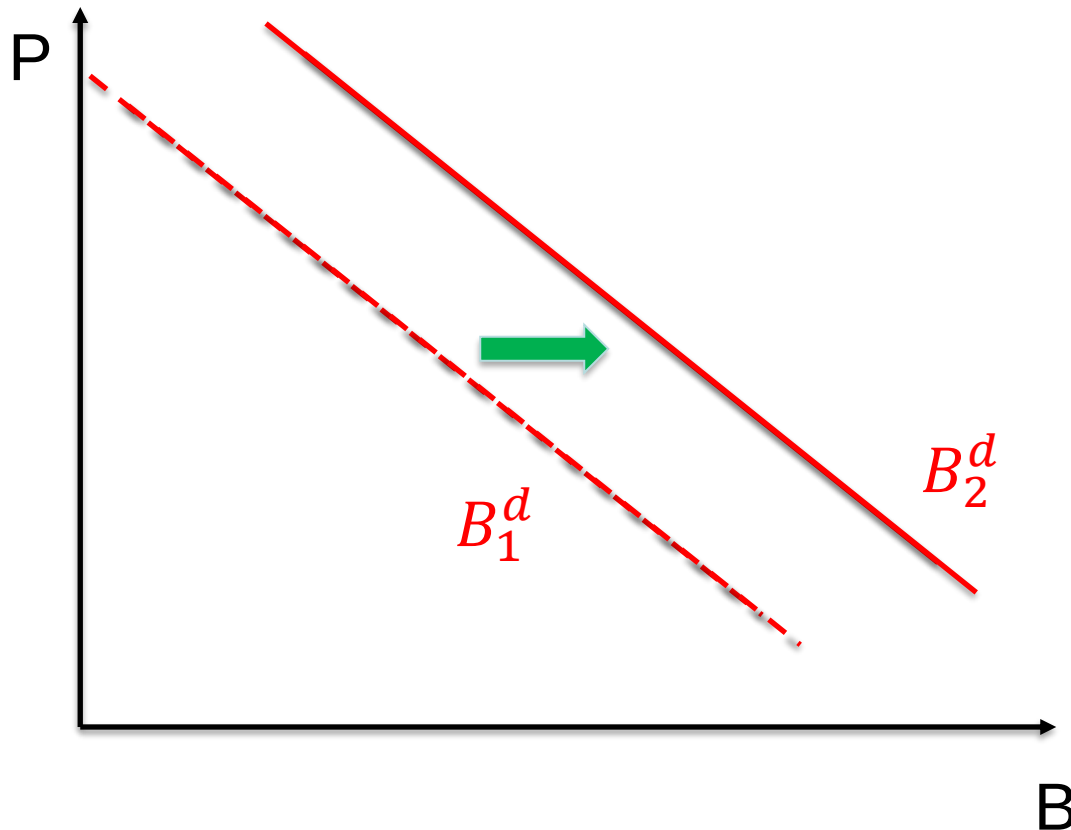


(1): wealth may increase for example due to macro shocks, such as a *prolonged periods of expansion* (e.g.: boom); the reverse with *recession*

Shift in Demand (1)

If wealth⁽¹⁾ $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ demand $\uparrow$

Think of economic boom (crisis) that in/de-creases wealth (absolute)

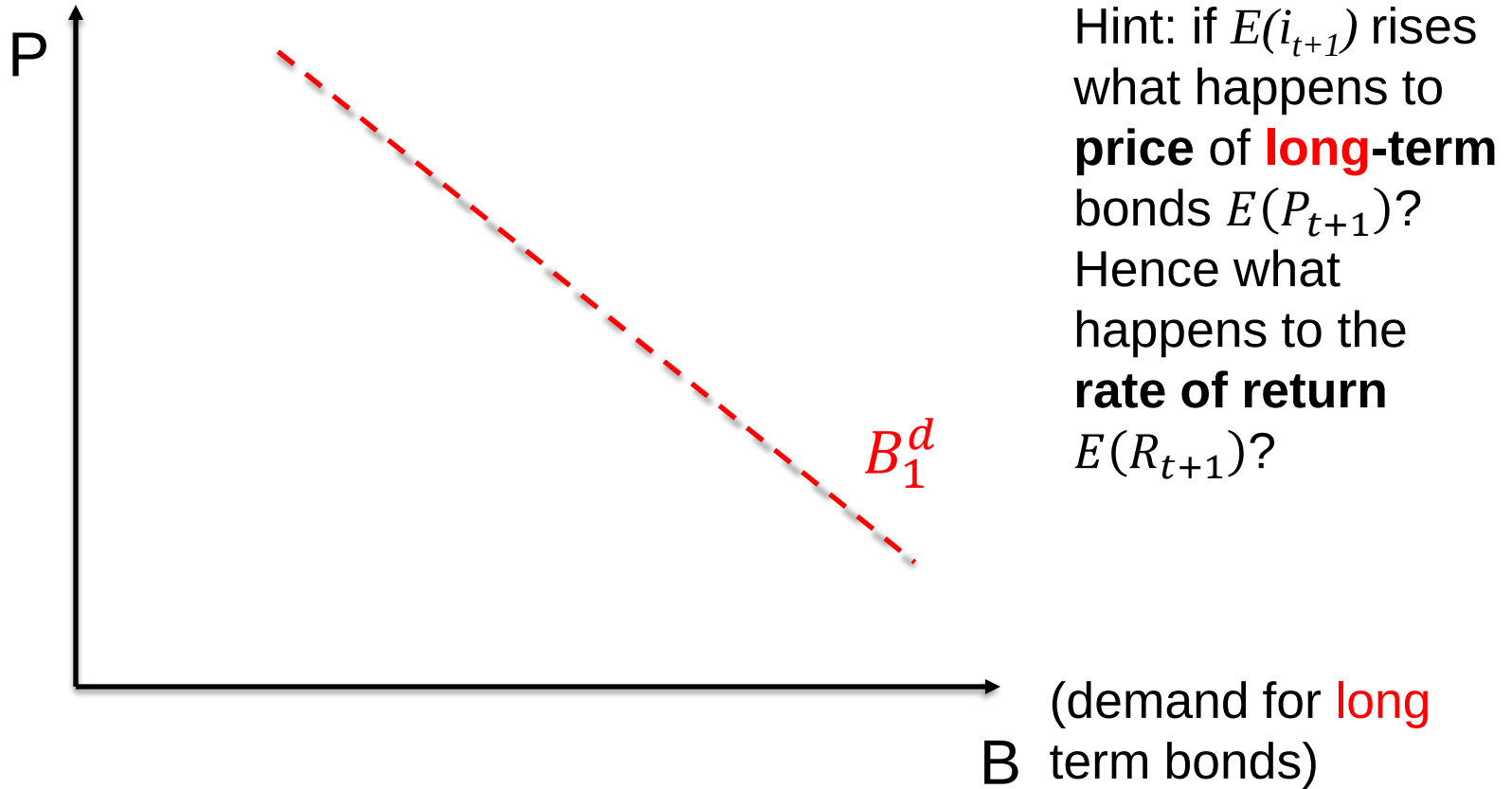


(1): wealth may increase for example due to macro shocks, such as a *prolonged periods of expansion* (e.g.: boom); the reverse with *recession*

Shift in Demand (2)

If expected interest rate $\uparrow$ in $t + 1$ [$E(i_{t+1})$] $\Rightarrow$ demand ?

(relative)

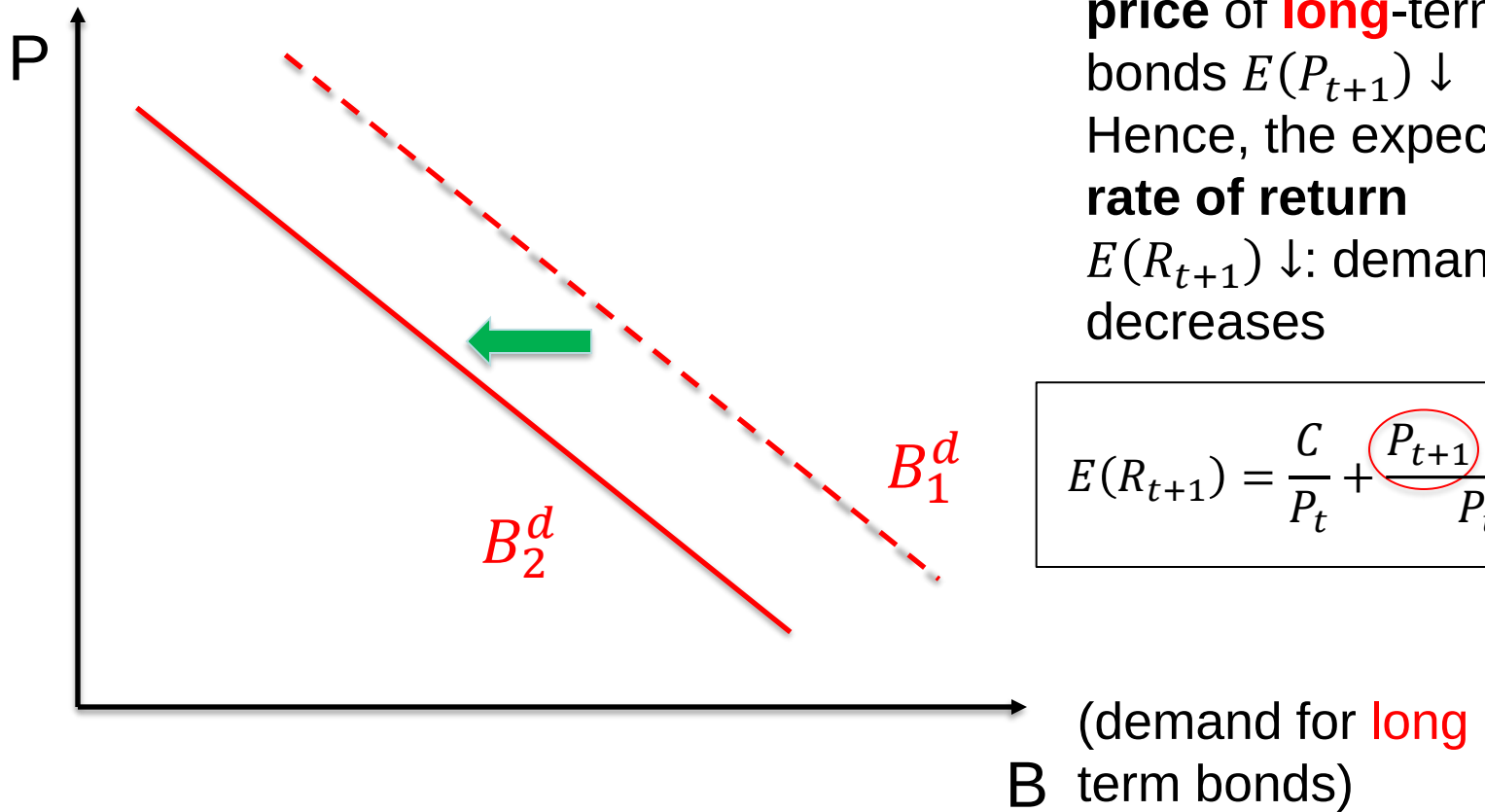


Q: What happens to **1-year** discount bond with maturity of **1 year** if $E(i) \uparrow$?

Shift in Demand (2)

If expected interest rate $\uparrow$ in $t + 1$ [$E(i_{t+1})$] $\Rightarrow$ demand $\downarrow$
(relative)

Hint: if $E(i_{t+1})$ rises,
price of **long**-term
bonds $E(P_{t+1}) \downarrow$
Hence, the expected
rate of return
 $E(R_{t+1}) \downarrow$: demand
decreases



$$E(R_{t+1}) = \frac{C}{P_t} + \frac{P_{t+1} - P_t}{P_t}$$

Q: What happens to **1-year** discount bond with maturity of **1 year** if $E(i) \uparrow$?

A: Nothing! YTM=return, only today's i matters (in this case: $h = n$)

ECB announced increase of interest rates of 75 bps: $E(i_{t+1}) \uparrow$

Italy 10 Year Government Bond

3.929%

▲ 0.071

Last Updated: Sep 8, 2022 at 3:21 p.m. CEST

PREVIOUS CLOSE

3.858%

3.791

DAY RANGE

3.967 0.538

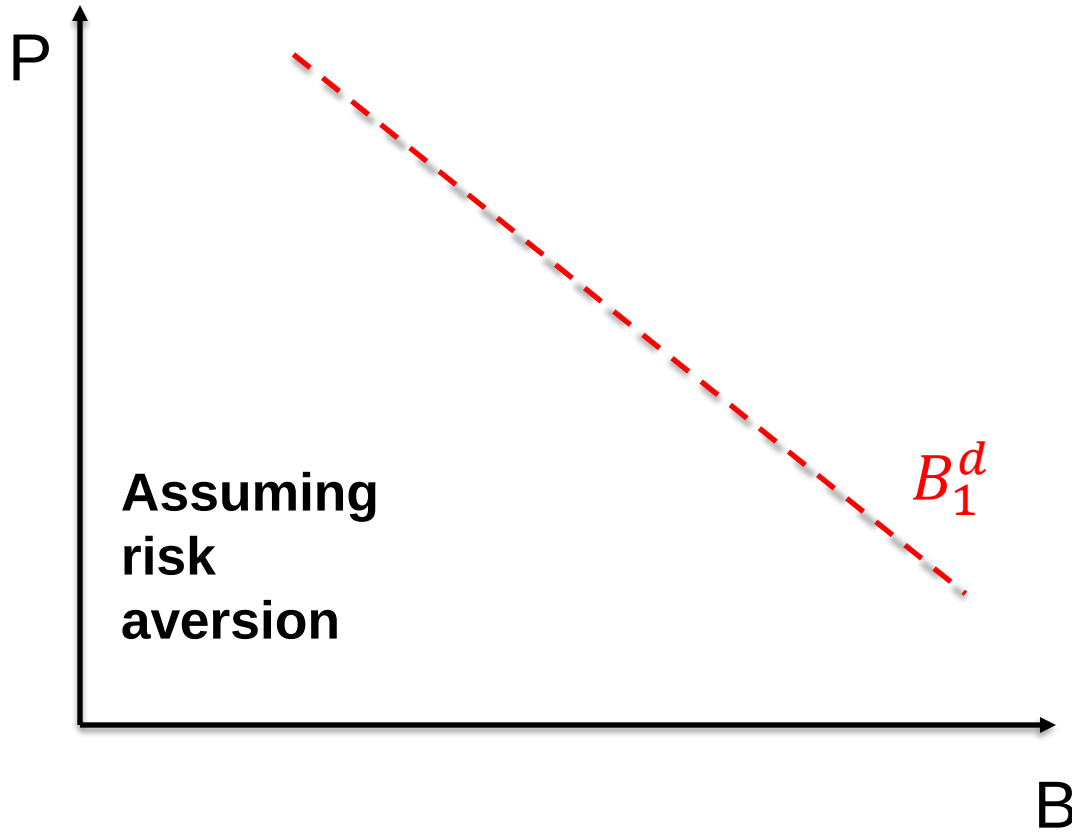
52 WEEK RANGE



Soon after announcement, expected interest rate of Italian 10ys
Gov bonds $\uparrow$: $E(i_{t+1}) \uparrow$

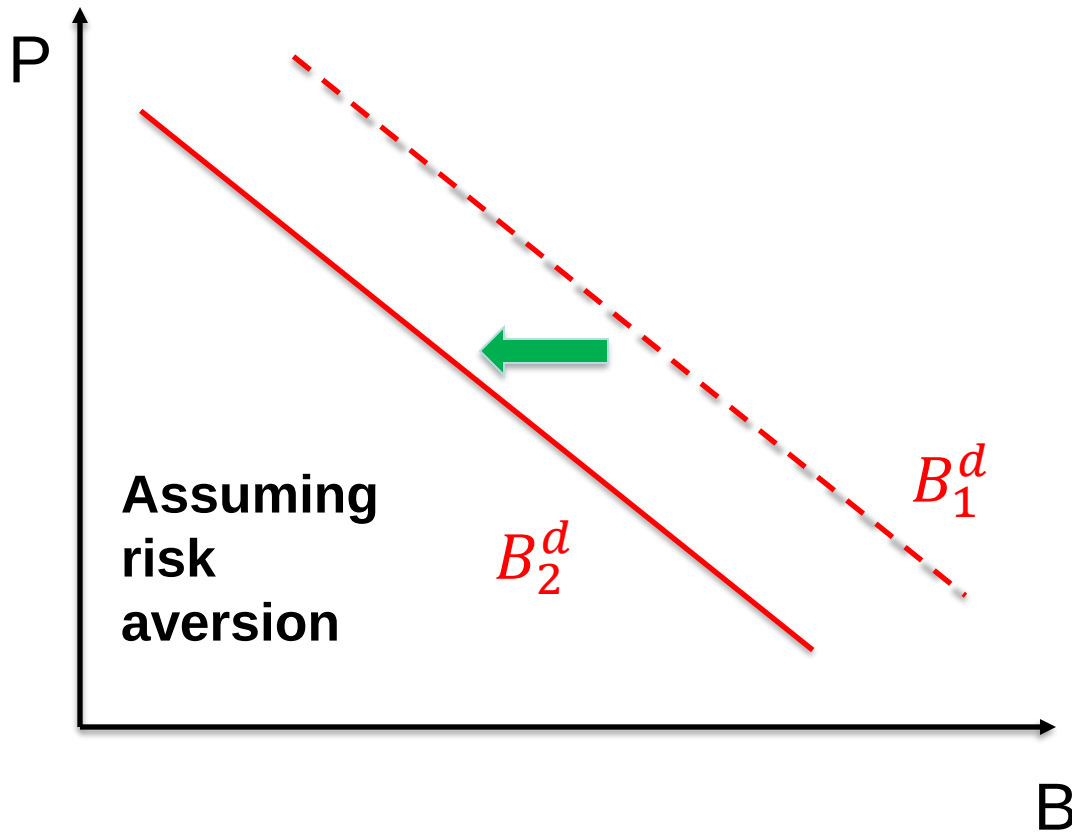
Shift in Demand (3)

If **riskiness** of bonds (relative to other assets) $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ demand ?
(relative)



Shift in Demand (3)

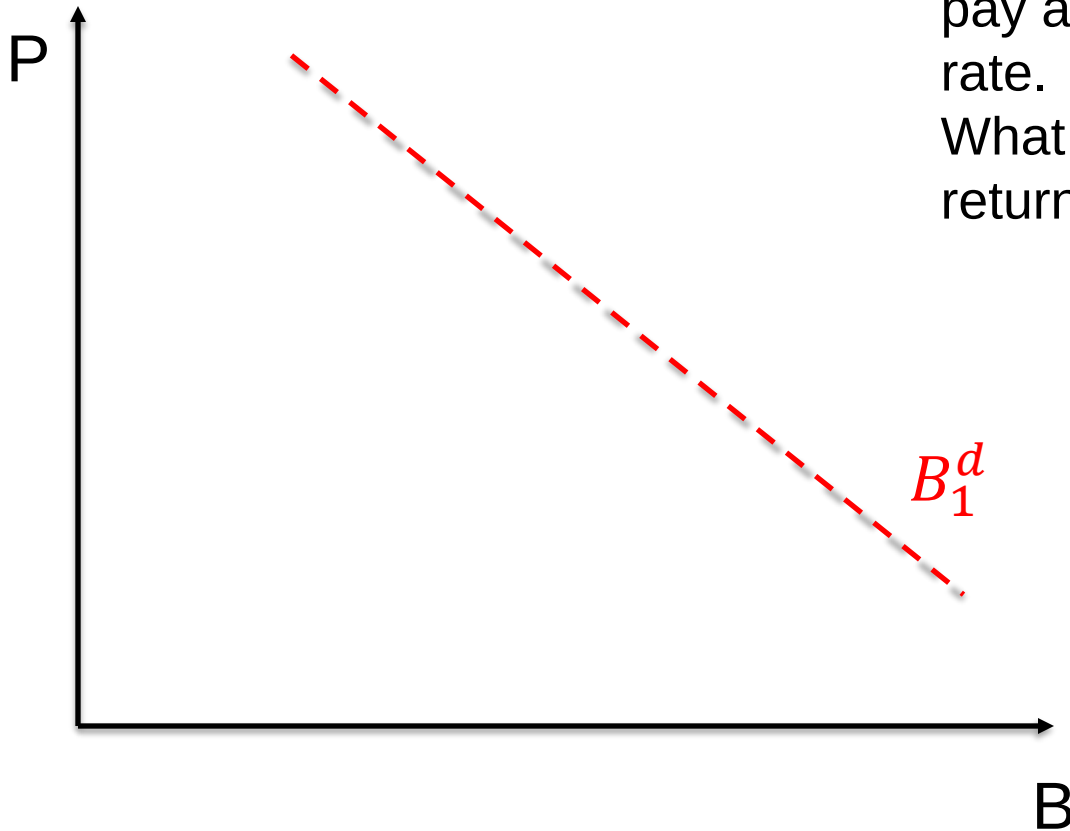
If riskiness of bonds (relative to other assets) $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ demand $\downarrow$ (relative)



Shift in Demand (4)

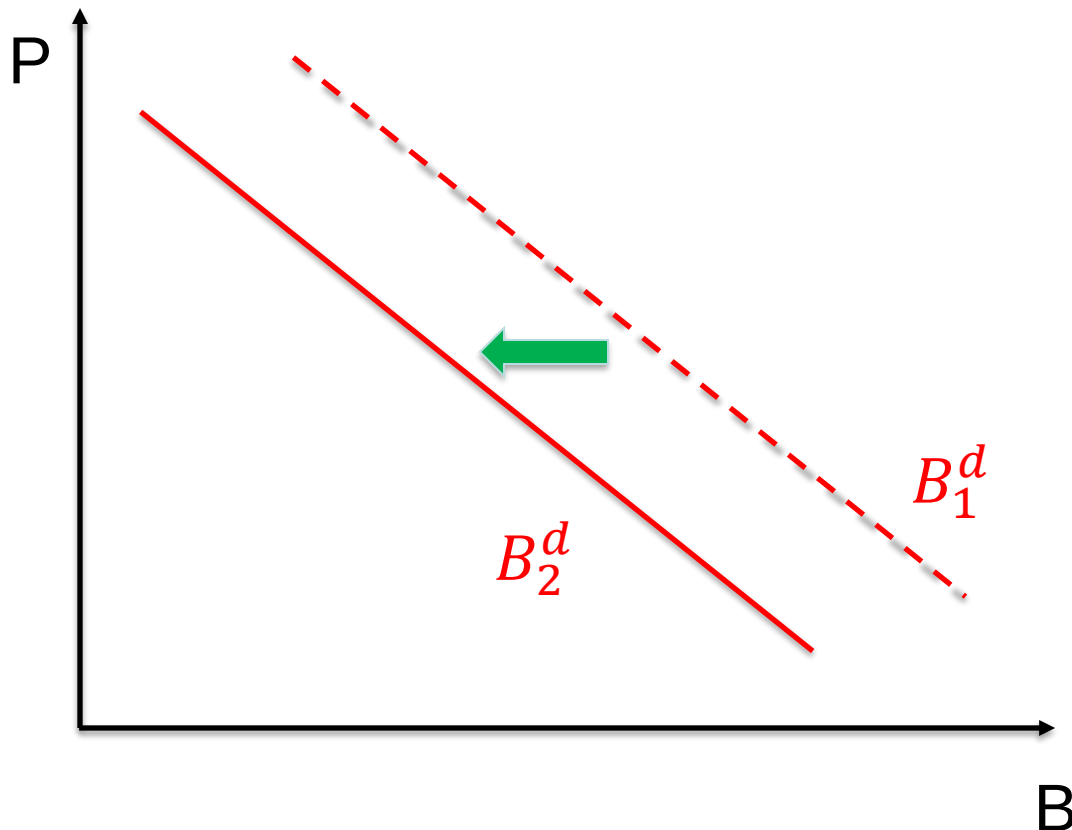
If $\pi^e \uparrow \Rightarrow$ demand ?
(absolute)

Hint: recall that bonds pay a nominal interest rate.
What happens to the real return?



Shift in Demand (4)

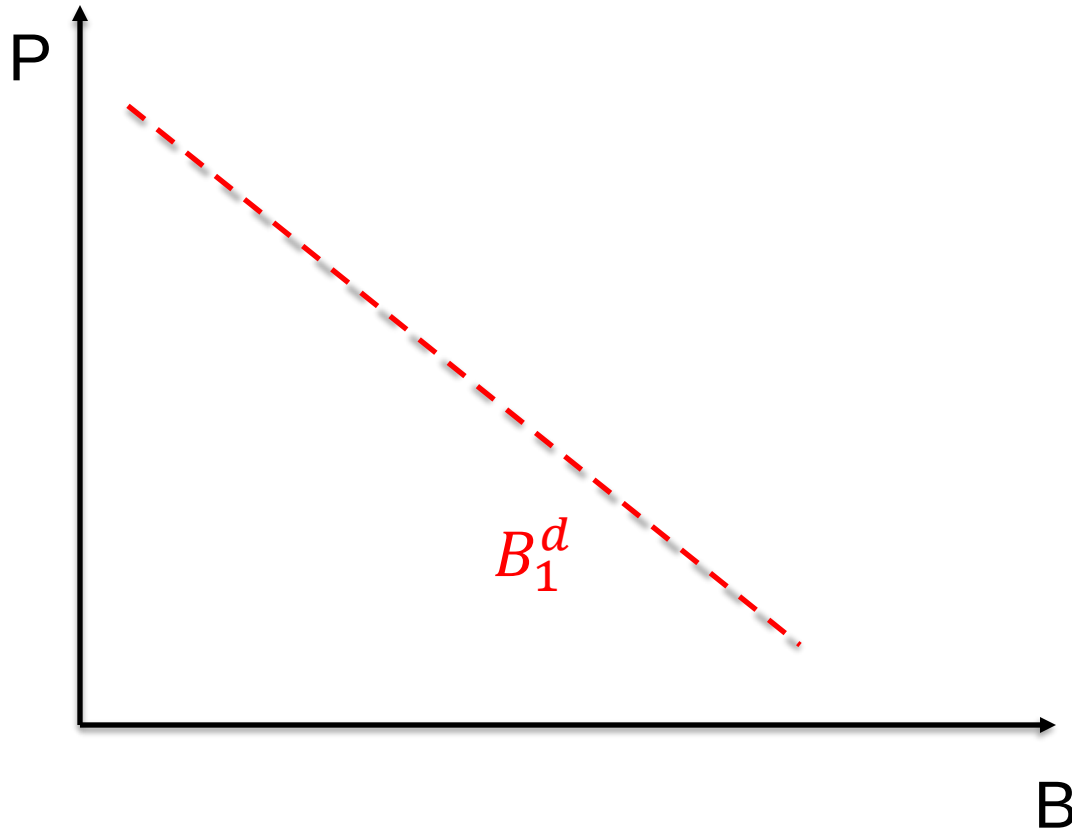
If $\pi^e \uparrow \Rightarrow$ demand $\downarrow$
(absolute)



Expected real
return falls as
inflation is
expected to rise

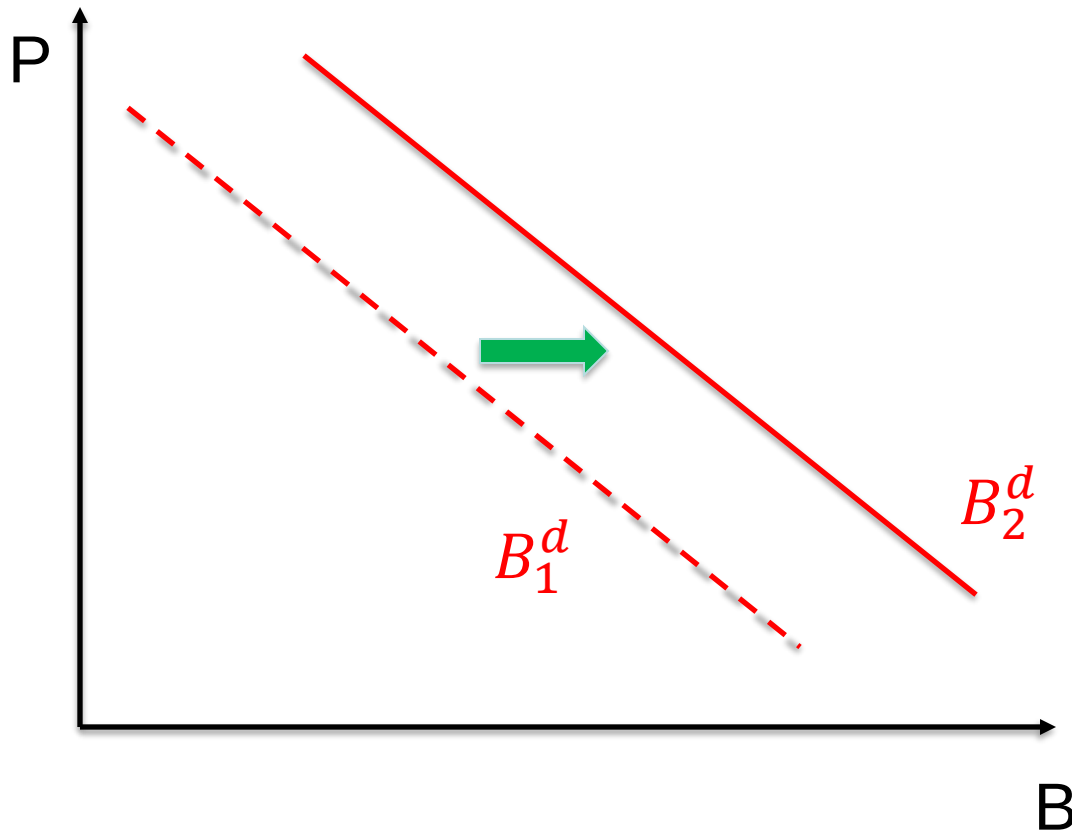
Shift in Demand (5)

If **liquidity** of bonds $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ demand ?
(relative)



Shift in Demand (5)

If liquidity of bonds $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ demand $\uparrow$
(relative)



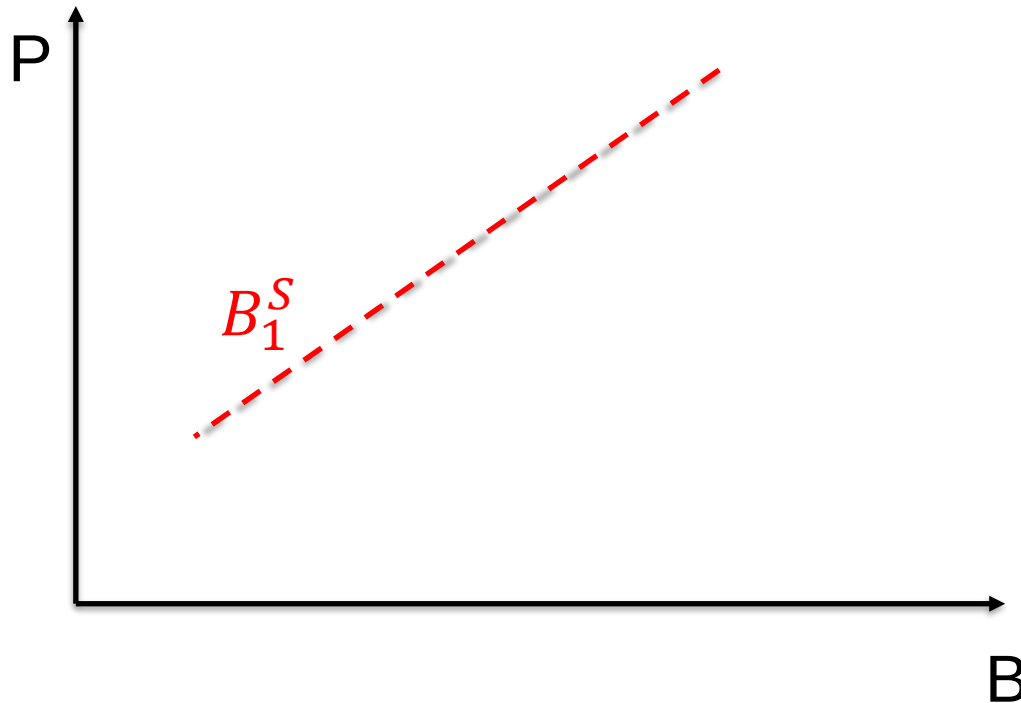
Shift in Supply

Now let's consider factors that shift the supply curve

1. Expected **profitability** of investments (say productivity)
2. Expected future **inflation**: π^e
3. **Government deficit**

Shift in Supply (1)

If **expected profitability** of investment⁽¹⁾ $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ supply ?
(absolute/relative)

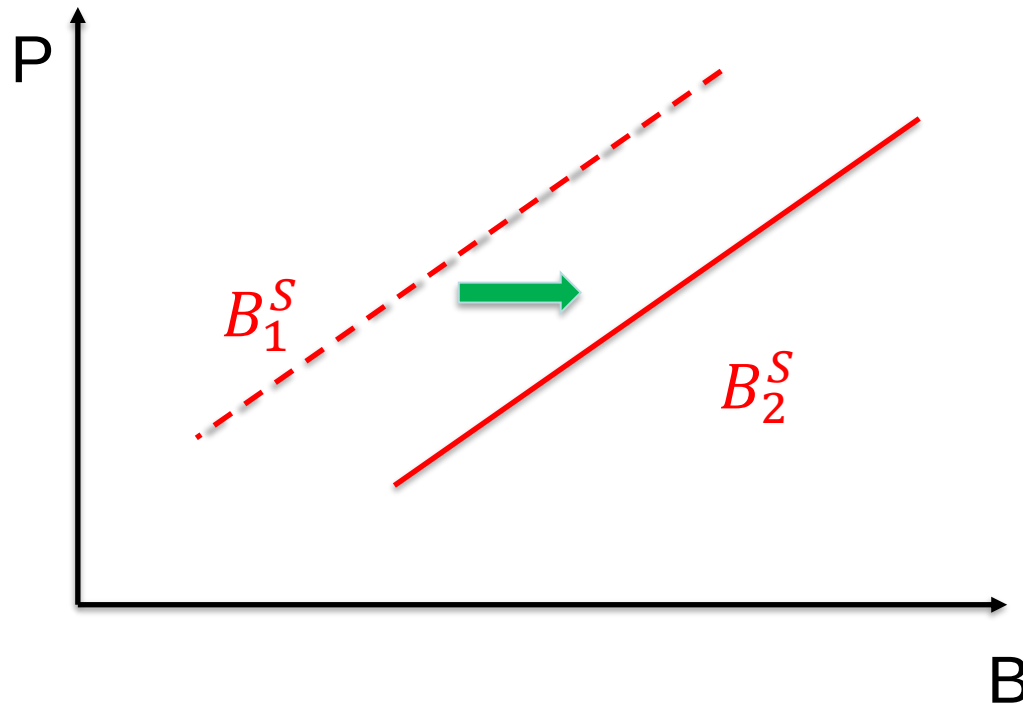


(1). profitability of investment may refer both to:

- a **micro** shock (firm investment opportunities increase due to, say, new patent)
or
- a **macro** shock (boom/recession).

Shift in Supply (1)

If expected profitability of investment⁽¹⁾ $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ supply $\uparrow$
(absolute/relative)

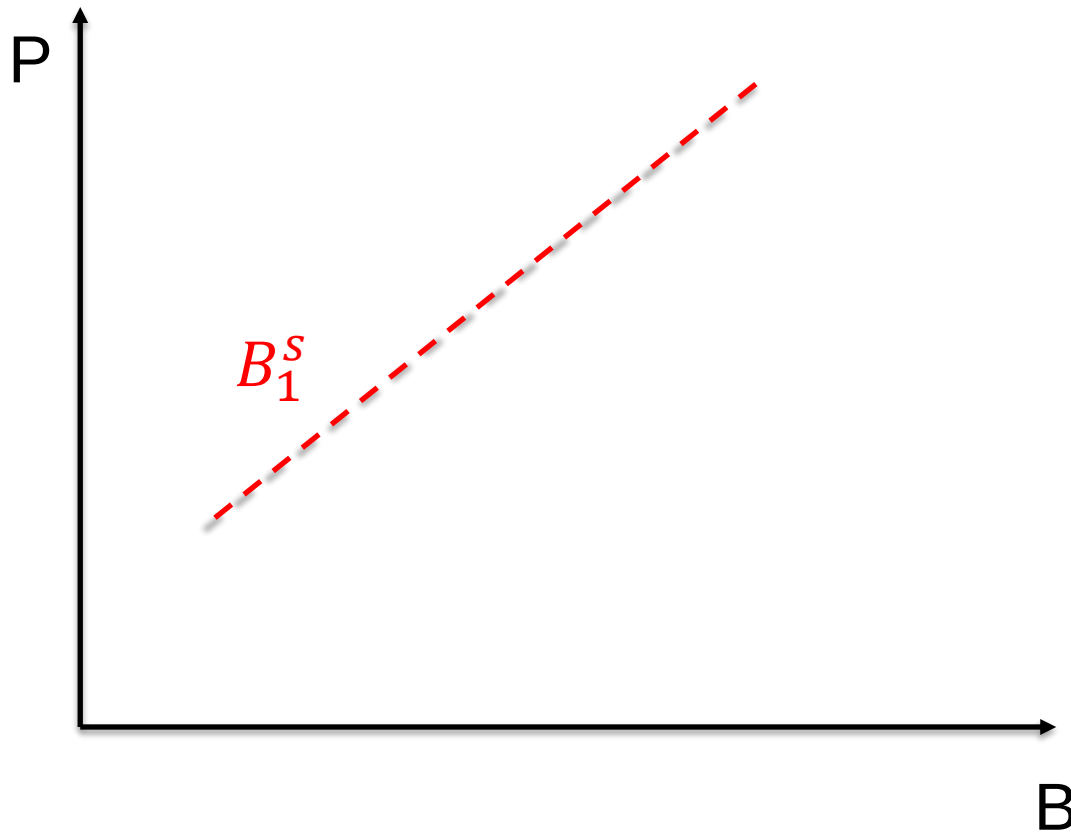


(1). profitability of investment may refer both to:

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Shift in Supply (2)

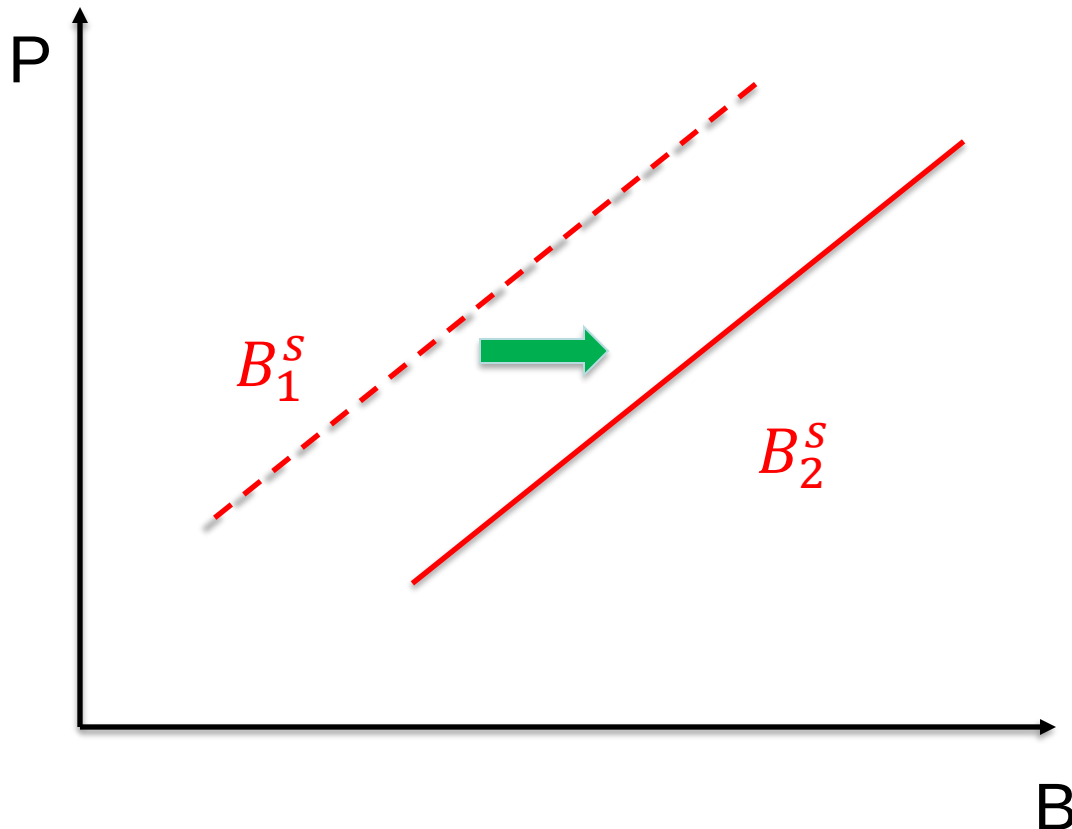
If $\pi^e \uparrow \Rightarrow$ supply ?
(absolute)



Shift in Supply (2)

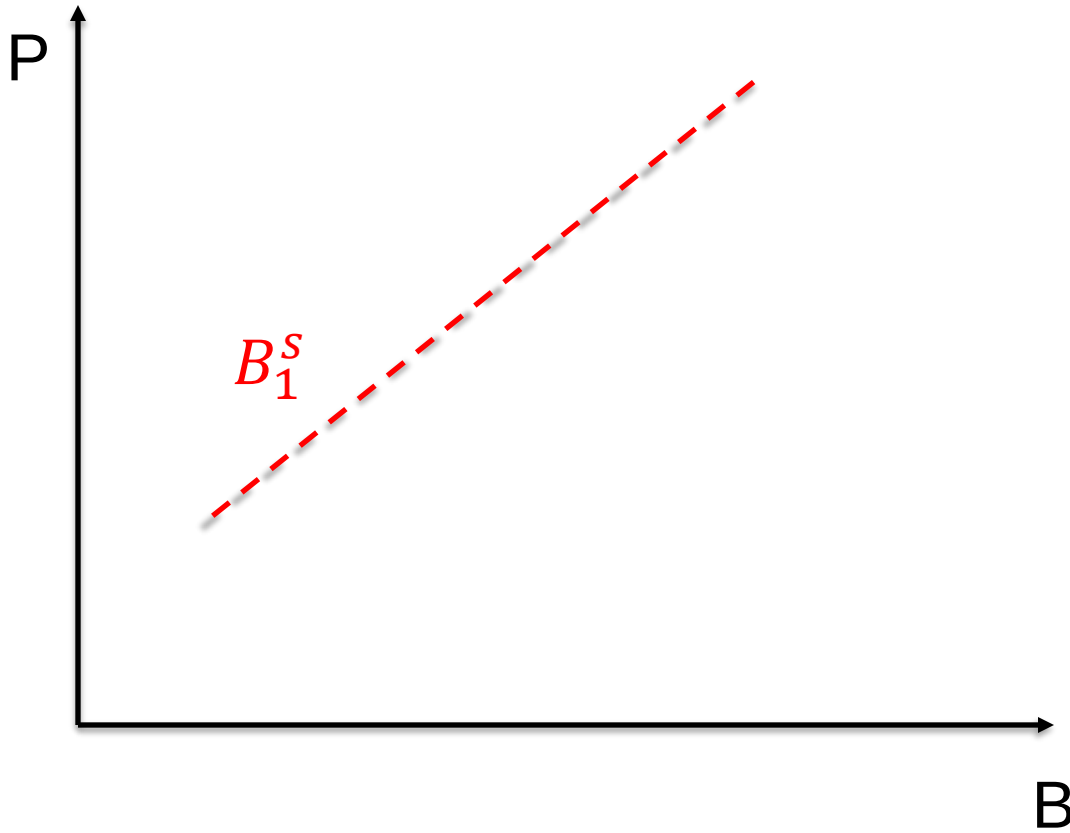
If $\pi^e \uparrow \Rightarrow$ supply $\uparrow$
(absolute)

Real cost of borrowing $\downarrow$, it is less costly to borrow by issuing bonds $\Rightarrow$ supply **increases**



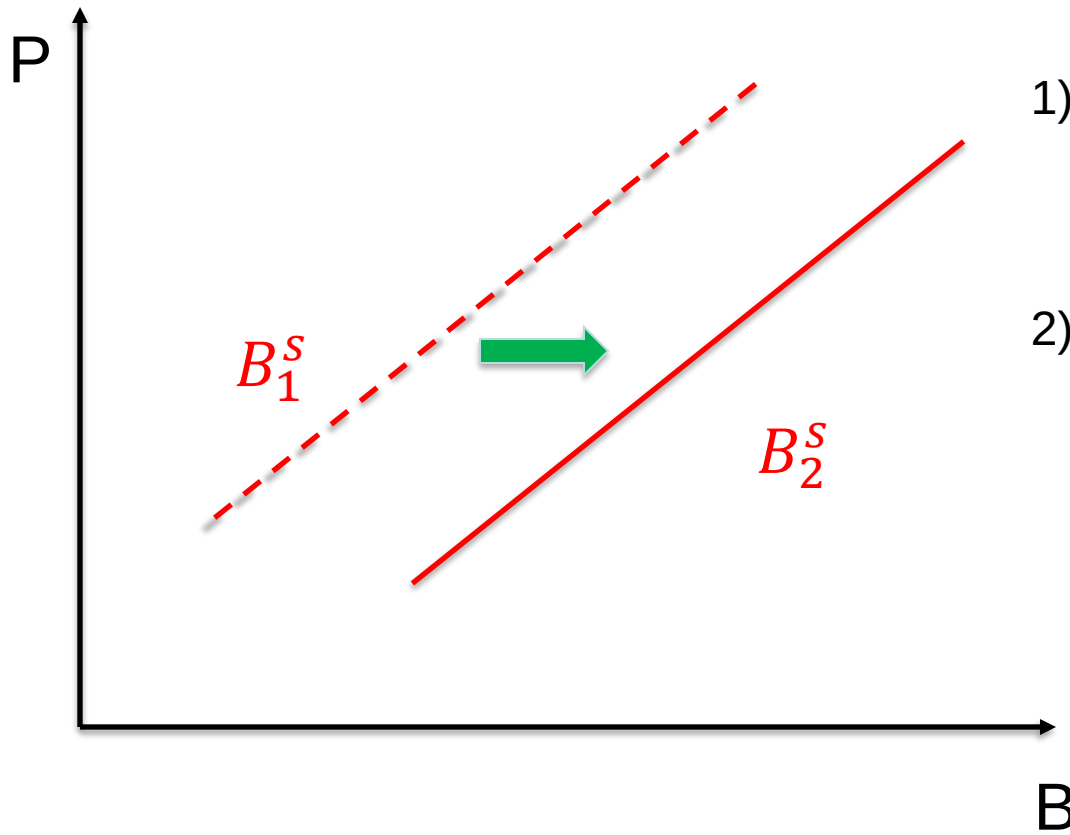
Shift in Supply (3)

If **government deficit** $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ supply ?
(relative)



Shift in Supply (3)

If government deficit $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ supply $\uparrow$
(relative)

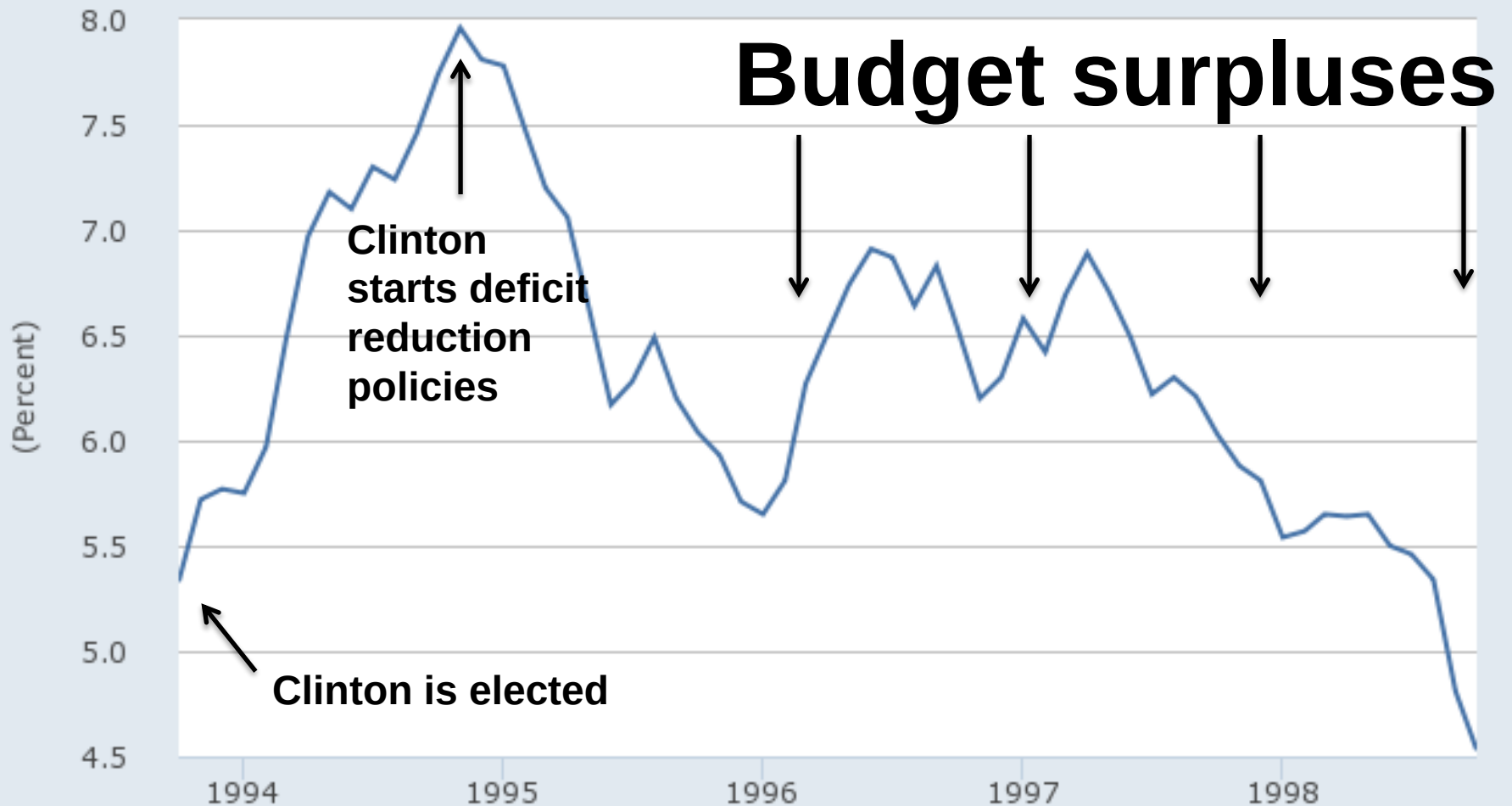


- 1) Larger deficit need more refinancing ... gov. issues more bonds
- 2) Interest rate required by investor is higher (so lower price) ... recall crowding out in macro?

The Bond Market Vigilantes

FRED 

— Long-Term Government Bond Yields: 10-year: Main (Including Benchmark) for the United States©



Source: Organization for Economic Co-operation and Development

Shaded areas indicate US recessions - 2015 research.stlouisfed.org

Recap: shifts in Demand and in Supply

DEMAND

- ✓ if **wealth** (absolute*) $\uparrow$ $\Rightarrow$ demand $\uparrow$ (shift right)
- ✓ if **expected return** (relative*) $\uparrow$ $\Rightarrow$ demand $\uparrow$ (shift right)
- ✓ if risk (relative*) $\uparrow$ $\Rightarrow$ demand $\downarrow$ (shift left)
- ✓ if **expected inflation** $\uparrow$ ($\pi^e \uparrow$; absolute*) $\Rightarrow$ demand $\downarrow$ (shift left)
- ✓ if liquidity of bonds (abs./rel.*) $\uparrow$ $\Rightarrow$ demand $\uparrow$ (shift right)

SUPPLY

- ✓ if **expected profit. of invest.** (abs./rel.*) $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ supply $\uparrow$ (shift right)
- ✓ if **expected inflation** $\uparrow$ ($\pi^e \uparrow$; absolute*) $\Rightarrow$ supply $\uparrow$ (shift right)
- ✓ if government deficit $\uparrow$ (relative*) $\uparrow \Rightarrow$ supply $\uparrow$ (shift right)

(*): it is absolute if, 4 ex., a reform reduces trading commission costs to all securities; it is relative if it does so only to one category of bonds

Special case: the Fisher Effect

If $\pi^e \uparrow$, what happens to B^d and B^s ?

Fisher effect: *when expected inflation **rises**, interest rates will **rise***

Why?

Special case: the Fisher Effect

If $\pi^e \uparrow$, what happens to B^d and B^s ?

1) $R^e \downarrow$:
 B^d shifts in to left

2) real cost of
issuance $\downarrow$:
 B^s shifts to right

3) In the new equilibrium:

- $P \downarrow$, so $i \uparrow$
- the quantity of bonds *may* change (both $\downarrow$ or $\uparrow$) or *may not* change

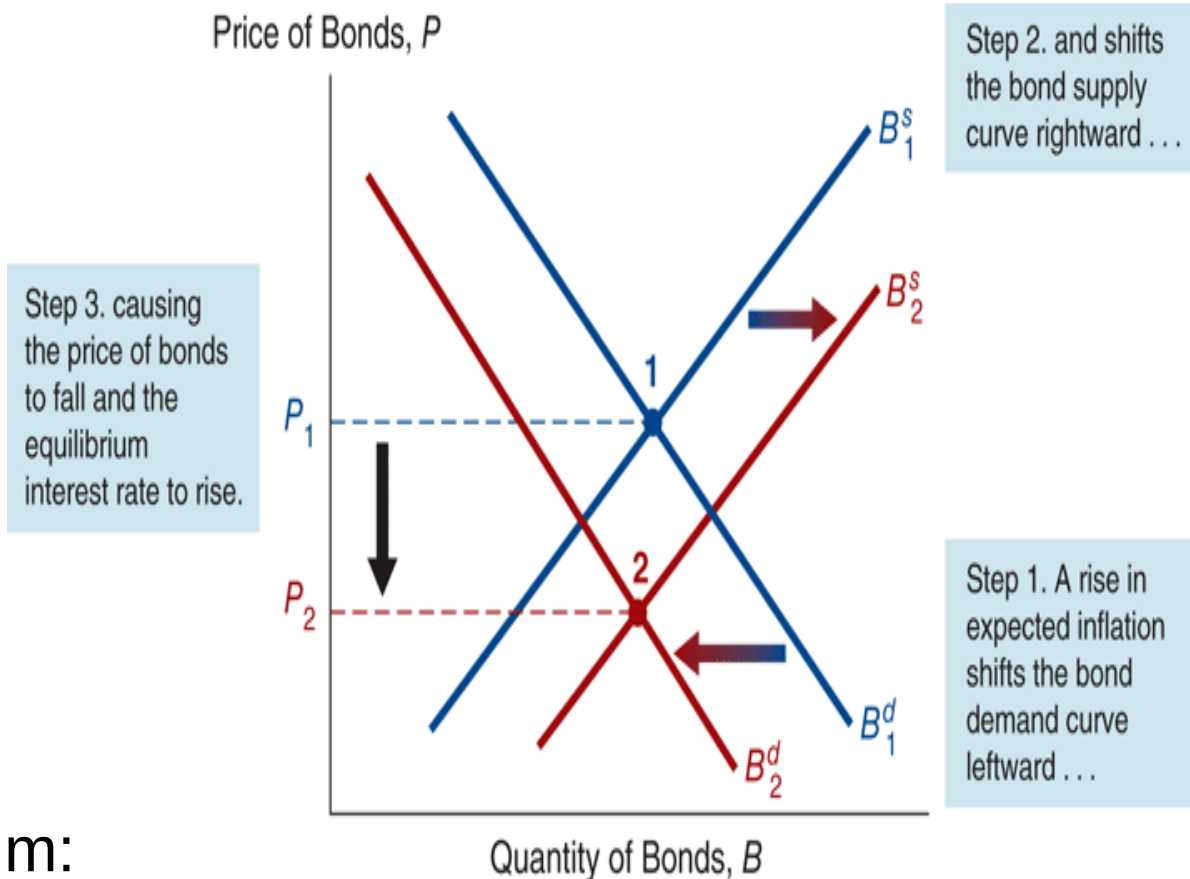


Figure 4.5 Expected Inflation and Interest Rates (Three-Month Treasury Bills), 1953–2013



Source: Expected inflation calculated using procedures outlined in Frederic S. Mishkin, "The Real Interest Rate: An Empirical Investigation," *Carnegie-Rochester Conference Series on Public Policy* 15 (1981): 151–200. These procedures involve estimating expected inflation as a function of past interest rates, inflation, and time trends. Nominal three-month Treasury bill rates from <http://research.stlouisfed.org/fred2/>.

Special case: Business Cycle Expansion

Suppose there is a **business cycle expansion**

Meaning national income increases

Q: What is the expected effect on equilibrium interest rates?

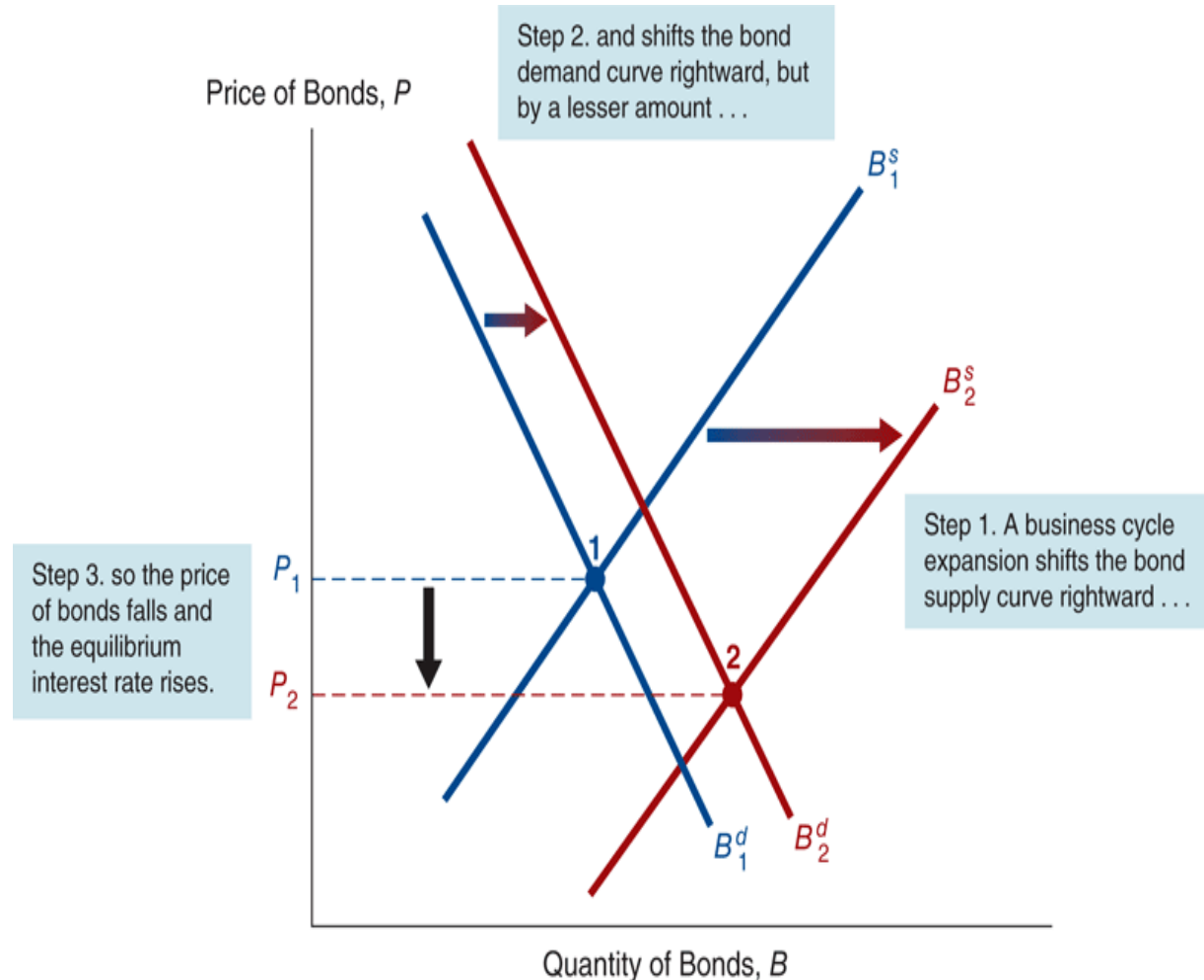
Hint: both demand and supply are affected. Indeed, if national income increases:

- **wealth** increases demand
- more **business opportunities** increase supply

Special case: Business Cycle Expansion

What happens to B^d and B^s ?

1. Expansion means wealth $\uparrow$, $B^d \uparrow$ and it shifts out to **right**
2. Investment opportunities $\uparrow$, $B^s \uparrow$ and it shifts out to **right**
3. **Ambiguous total effect on i :**
 - a) If B^s shifts more than B^d then $P \downarrow$, $i \uparrow$
 - b) If B^s shifts less than B^d then $P \uparrow$, $i \downarrow$

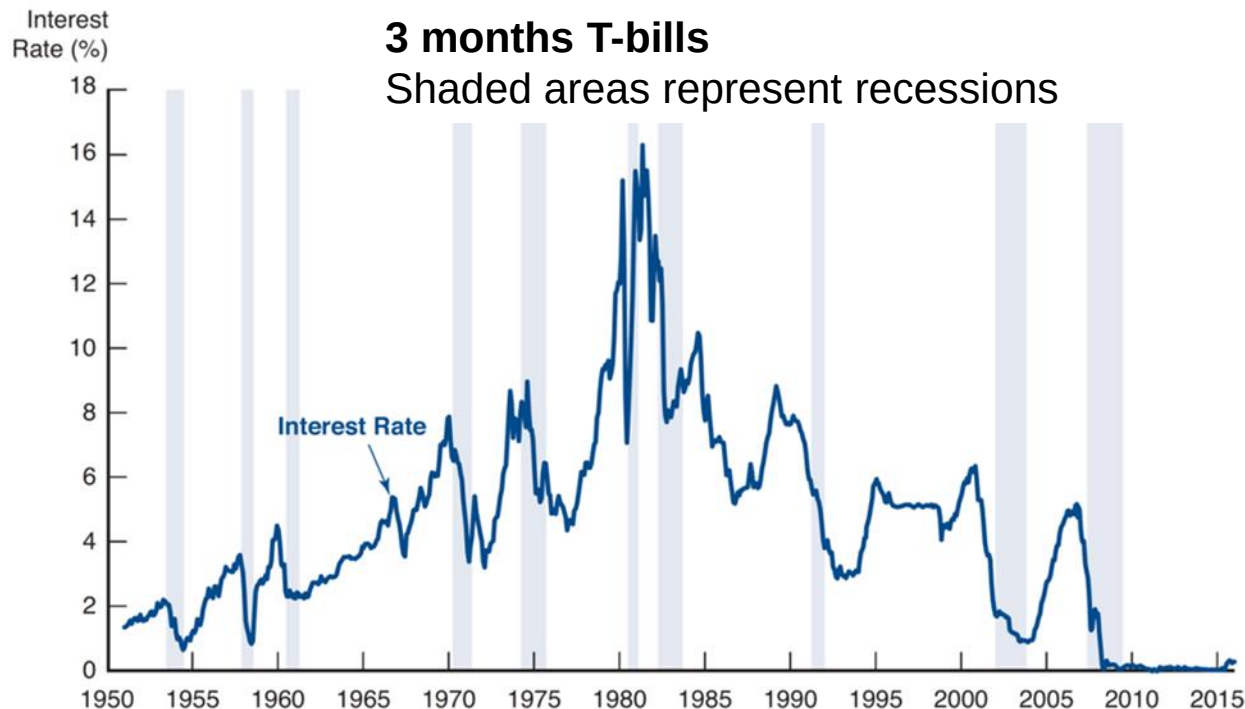


At the new equilibrium:

- quantity always increases
 - intuitively, if B^s increases more than B^d , $P \downarrow$ ($i \uparrow$), and vice versa
- Try at home to make graph of case *b*).

Suggestive evidence on Business Cycles and Interest Rates

Interest rates are **positively** correlated with business cycle expansions (bond prices **negatively** correlated)



Special case: Negative Interest Rates

Why would anyone ever buy a government bond with **negative** yield?

- ✓ **Safety** (especially for large amounts, say >\$100mil.)
- ✓ Makes sense if inflation is low and other investment opportunities are scarce
 - there are trillions (!) of \$ of government debt yielding negative rates in the world
 - until recently, all German government bonds (including 30 year !!!) have had negative yield for relevant periods: see [10 year](#)
 - in August 2021, 10-year common EU bonds had an interest of about -0.01% (like [French debt](#))
 - situation dramatically changed after Covid crisis (global supply bottlenecks) and war in Ukraine ... interest rates (and inflation) went on the rise, even German gov. bonds have, since then, [a positive yield](#)... no country [nowadays](#)

Special case: Negative Interest Rates

- ✓ In the wake of the global financial crisis, **interest rates** in Europe and the United States, as well as in Japan, have fallen to **extremely low levels**. How can we explain that within the framework discussed so far?
 - it's a little tricky, but we can do it!
- ✓ Inflation fell to negative rates, leading to lower real rates:
 - $B^d \uparrow$ (shifts out to **right** ... less costly to borrow)
 - $B^s \downarrow$ (shifts out to **left** ... less convenient to lend)
 - Net effect was an **increase** in *bond prices* (falling interest rates)
- ✓ Business cycle contraction led to:
 - $B^d \downarrow$ (shifts out to **left** ... less need to borrow)
 - $B^s \downarrow$ (shifts out to **left** ... less opportunities to lend)
 - Net effect was **not clear** on *bond prices*
- ✓ Overall:
 - the shift out to **right** in B^d is *less significant* than the shift out to **left** in B^d
 - so, the *net effect* was also an **increase in bond prices** ($P \uparrow$, $r \downarrow$)